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DISARMAMENT & INTERNATIONAL SECURITY COMMITTEE

- A) Combating cybercrime and dark web activities through global collaboration and regulation.
- B) Combating the Proliferation of Chemical Weapons in Fragile States

DISEC

Disarmament & International Security Committee

Introduction and Mandate of DISEC

The Disarmament and International Security Committee (DISEC) is the First Committee of the United Nations General Assembly (UNGA), mandated to address disarmament, international peace and security, and threats to global stability. Its authority derives from Articles 11 and 26 of the UN Charter, which empower the General Assembly to consider arms regulation and principles for maintaining international peace and security.

Role Within the UN System

DISEC functions as a deliberative and consensus-building forum rather than an enforcement body. Unlike the Security Council, it cannot impose binding measures, but it plays a critical role in shaping international norms, political commitments, and policy frameworks. Through resolutions and reports, DISEC influences other UN bodies, particularly the UN Security Council, the UN Office for Disarmament Affairs (UNODA), the UN Institute for Disarmament Research (UNIDIR), and various arms-control conventions and review mechanisms.

Historical Evolution

Since 1946, when early UN commissions on atomic energy and conventional arms were established, DISEC has evolved into a standing committee on disarmament and security. Over time, its focus has expanded beyond nuclear weapons to include chemical and biological weapons, small arms and light weapons, autonomous weapons systems, cybersecurity, and information warfare.

Relevance to Cybercrime and the Dark Web

Although cybercrime is operationally addressed by UNODC, its implications for international peace fall within DISEC's mandate. Cyberattacks on critical infrastructure, dark-web trafficking of weapons and malware, ransomware targeting state institutions, and the misuse of dual-use digital technologies all pose direct risks to global stability.

What DISEC Can Do

DISEC provides a forum for developing international norms on cyber stability, reducing the militarization of cyberspace, addressing dual-use technologies, and promoting cyber capacity-building and resilience, particularly for developing states.

Overall, DISEC is a non-binding yet highly influential committee shaping global security norms, with increasing relevance to cybercrime and dark-web threats.

Purpose of Discussion

Why This Issue Matters Now

Cybercrime has rapidly increased in scale, sophistication, and security impact. Since 2020, there has been a sharp rise in ransomware attacks against governments and hospitals, increased targeting of critical infrastructure, and the expansion of dark-web criminal ecosystems. Both UNODC and the UN Security Council recognize that malicious cyber activity can threaten international peace when state functions are disrupted.

Why DISEC Is Addressing It

Cybercrime intersects with DISEC's mandate through illicit arms and malware markets, the spread of malware-as-a-service, the use of encrypted platforms and cryptocurrencies, and the security implications of emerging technologies. DISEC's engagement is supported by its longstanding agenda item on information and telecommunications in international security, most recently reaffirmed in UNGA Resolution 78/247 (2023).

Delegate Objectives and Scope

Delegates are expected to assess cybercrime's impact on international security, explore confidence-building measures, promote information-sharing and capacity-building, and draft a consensus-based resolution with political recommendations. The discussion must avoid domestic law enforcement, private platform moderation, or police operations, and instead focus on security implications, state cooperation, international norms, sovereignty, and international law.

This discussion seeks consensus-based political solutions to cybercrime's security impacts, staying within DISEC's mandate and avoiding operational law-enforcement debates.

DISEC Agenda: A

Combating cybercrime and dark web activities through global collaboration and regulations

1. Introduction to Agenda A

Defining Cybercrime and the Dark Web

According to UNODC, cybercrime includes cyber-dependent crimes that exist only in digital systems, such as hacking and malware, and cyber-enabled crimes where technology amplifies traditional offenses like fraud and trafficking. The dark web consists of encrypted parts of the internet accessed through anonymization tools such as Tor. While it has legitimate privacy uses, it also hosts illicit markets for drugs, firearms, malware, and stolen data.

Scale, Stakeholders, and Security Dimension

Ransomware is among the most disruptive global cyber threats, with a significant share of organizations expecting major cyberattacks in the near future. Crime-as-a-service models have lowered entry barriers for criminals. States seek to protect national infrastructure, the private sector focuses on data security and supply chains, and civil society emphasizes human rights and privacy. Dark-web activity transcends borders, complicates attribution, and weakens law-enforcement effectiveness, creating diplomatic tensions over sovereignty, data governance, and cross-border information sharing.

Relationship to Other UN Efforts

DISEC complements existing UN processes, including the UN Group of Governmental Experts (GGE), the Open-Ended Working Group (OEWG) on cyber norms, and the UNODC-led negotiations toward a cybercrime convention.

Agenda A frames cybercrime and dark-web activity as global security threats requiring multilateral cooperation, norm-building, and respect for digital rights.

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2. History and Background

Evolution of Cybercrime

Early networking developments such as ARPANET and incidents like the 1988 Morris Worm exposed system vulnerabilities and prompted national cybercrime laws. The rise of the Tor network in the 2000s enabled anonymity, while platforms like Silk Road demonstrated the potential of dark-web marketplaces. Law-enforcement shutdowns fragmented these markets rather than eliminating them, and cryptocurrencies facilitated pseudonymous transactions.

Cybercrime as a Security Threat:

From the 2010s onward, cybercrime became organized, commercialized, and strategically significant. Major incidents such as WannaCry and NotPetya in 2017, the SolarWinds breach in 2020, and the Costa Rica ransomware attack in 2022 highlighted its national security implications. Parallel UN processes emerged, with DISEC focusing on cyber norms and UNODC addressing criminal justice responses. *Cybercrime evolved from isolated hacking into a transnational security threat, prompting parallel UN tracks on cyber norms (DISEC) and criminal justice (UNODC).*

3. Causes of Cybercrime & Dark-Web Activity

Structural & Technological Causes

- Global connectivity expansion
- Anonymity and encryption tools
- Crime-as-a-service markets
- Poor cybersecurity practices

Political & Governance Causes

- Lack of unified global legislation
- Sovereignty disputes
- Limited capacity in developing states

Economic & Social Causes

- High profitability
- Youth unemployment
- Pandemic-driven digital reliance

Regional & Transnational Causes

- Weak regional regulation
- Cross-border jurisdictional complexity
- Conflict and instability

Cybercrime emerges from interconnected technological, political, economic, and governance failures across borders.

4. Effects of Cybercrime & Dark-Web Activity

Humanitarian & Social Effects

- Disruption of healthcare and public services
- Identity theft and exploitation
- Increased vulnerability of youth

Economic & Developmental Effects

- Billions in global losses
- Supply-chain disruptions
- Reduced investor confidence

Geopolitical & Strategic Effects

- National security threats
- Diplomatic escalation
- Spread of dual-use technologies

Law-Enforcement & Governance Effects

- Overburdened authorities
- Growth of organized cybercrime
- Declining trust in digital governance

Cultural & Social Stability Effects

- Disinformation and extremism
- Public fear and loss of confidence

Cybercrime undermines security, development, governance, and public trust, making it a multidimensional threat to international stability.

5. Current Situation Overview (2022–2025)

Cybercrime is expanding rapidly in scale, sophistication, and geopolitical significance. According to UNODC, INTERPOL, and ENISA, since 2022 there has been an increase in ransomware and extortion, persistent dark-web markets despite law-enforcement takedowns, growing attacks on critical infrastructure, and a rise in geopolitically linked cyber operations. Cybercrime is increasingly recognized not only as a criminal justice issue but also as a threat to international security.

Key Global Trends (2022–2025)

Ransomware and extortion have become the fastest-growing cyber threats, frequently targeting government ministries, hospitals, and utilities, with double extortion (encryption plus data-leak threats) emerging as a common tactic. Dark-web marketplaces have shown resilience despite takedowns such as Hydra in 2022, fragmenting into smaller, decentralized platforms that continue trading drugs, weapons, malware, and stolen data. Attacks on critical infrastructure—including energy, water, and transport systems—have increased, with state-owned systems often vulnerable due to outdated technology. Geopolitically motivated cyber activity has also risen, with heightened incidents linked to global crises and joint warnings issued by the UK NCSC and U.S. CISA in 2022–2023.

Notable Recent Events

Major incidents illustrate the security impact of cybercrime. The ransomware attacks in Costa Rica (2022–2023) triggered a national emergency and months-long disruption. Cyber operations connected to the conflict in Ukraine caused regional spillover and targeted infrastructure. Global healthcare attacks led to patient data breaches and service interruptions, while zero-day exploit markets have commodified advanced cyber vulnerabilities.

Regional Hotspots

Africa has seen surges in mobile-money fraud and online scams, with capacity gaps exploited by criminal networks. The Asia-Pacific region, particularly South and Southeast Asia, experiences high levels of organized cybercrime, ransomware, and crypto-enabled fraud. Europe faces increased targeting of energy, transport, and finance, exposing supply-chain vulnerabilities and state-linked threats. In the Americas, ransomware incidents rose after the Costa Rica attacks, accompanied by growth in dark-web sourcing from Latin America.

Current State Responses

States have responded primarily through national strategies. The United States emphasizes public–private cooperation and ransomware disruption, the European Union implements critical-sector protections under the NIS2 Directive, and India focuses on capacity-building and public-sector resilience. Cross-border operations, such as INTERPOL-led initiatives including Operation Storm Makers II, target cyber fraud, trafficking, and scam networks. Financial regulation efforts involve FATF monitoring of virtual asset service providers (VASPs), though significant gaps remain in tracing illicit cryptocurrency flows. Despite these efforts, uneven national capacity limits overall effectiveness.

Multilateral Developments (UN & International)

The UN Open-Ended Working Group (OEWG) continues negotiating norms of responsible state behaviour, confidence-building measures, and capacity-building frameworks, with growing support for voluntary reporting and assistance. The UN Ad Hoc Committee (AHC) on Cybercrime, mandated by UNGA Resolution 75/282 (2021), is drafting a global convention covering illegal access and interference, fraud, exploitation, and evidence-sharing, although

disagreements persist regarding jurisdiction, surveillance powers, and human-rights protections. Regional frameworks also advance governance, including the African Union's Malabo Convention and the Council of Europe's Budapest Convention and 2022 Protocol. Global governance is thus evolving through parallel UN security and criminal-justice tracks, but consensus remains incomplete.

Key Challenges

The current cyber environment faces several obstacles. Attribution is difficult due to anonymization technologies, while capacity disparities between developed and developing states hinder coordinated responses. Rapid technological evolution, including AI-enabled malware and deepfakes, complicates mitigation, and fragmented norms across UN and regional frameworks, combined with human-rights concerns regarding surveillance powers, continue to limit unified, rights-respecting action.

6. UN Past Actions & Institutional Roles

UNGA Resolutions

Foundational resolutions have shaped international cooperation on cybercrime, including 55/63 (2000) on early cooperation, 57/239 (2002) promoting a global culture of cybersecurity, and 58/199 (2004) addressing protection of critical infrastructure.

First Committee Processes

Within the First Committee, the Group of Governmental Experts (GGE, 2004–2021) affirmed that international law applies to cyberspace and developed norms of responsible state behaviour. The Open-Ended Working Group (OEWG, 2019–present) promotes inclusive diplomacy, confidence-building measures, capacity-building, and maintains a global Points-of-Contact directory.

UNODC Operational Role

The UNODC Global Programme on Cybercrime, active since 2013, supports over 80 states through legislative drafting, digital forensics training, and regional cybercrime hubs.

ITU & Cyber Capacity

The International Telecommunication Union contributes via the Global Cybersecurity Index (GCI), CyberDrill simulations, and development of national CERTs and CSIRTs to enhance cyber capacity.

Human Rights Framework

Human rights oversight is provided through HRC Resolution 34/7 (2017) and OHCHR inputs to the AHC, emphasizing proportionality, judicial oversight, and privacy protections.

Overall, UN action combines norm-setting, capacity-building, and human-rights safeguards, though gaps remain in universal implementation.

7. Country & Bloc Positions (Comparative Overview)

Major Powers

The **United States** emphasizes a rules-based order, strong human-rights safeguards, and supports the Budapest Convention. **China** prioritizes sovereignty, favors a broad UN-led treaty, and opposes extraterritorial jurisdiction. The **Russian Federation** advocates a binding UN treaty with strong state control and procedural powers. The **United Kingdom** promotes an open and secure internet, narrow definitions of cybercrime, and robust safeguards. **France** balances cybersecurity with human rights while supporting EU-led resilience frameworks. **India** focuses on capacity-building and seeks to balance sovereignty with rights protection. **Brazil** emphasizes development and South–South cooperation, while the **United Arab Emirates** prioritizes infrastructure protection, cryptocurrency regulation, and public–private partnerships.

Bloc Positions

Bloc	Core Themes
European Union	Human-rights-based cybersecurity; NIS2
G77 + China	Capacity-building; development equity
NAM	Sovereignty; non-interference
African Union	Malabo Convention; technical assistance

State positions diverge along lines of sovereignty, human rights, and development capacity, shaping negotiations in DISEC and beyond.

8. Possible Solutions Framework

Short-Term (1–2 Years)

Initial actions include enhanced OEWG reporting and maintenance of global Points of Contact, joint operations coordinated by INTERPOL and UNODC, and strengthened public–private information-sharing initiatives.

Medium-Term (2–5 Years)

This phase focuses on legal harmonization across jurisdictions, establishing regional cooperation mechanisms, and expanding capacity-building hubs to assist states with weaker cyber capabilities.

Long-Term (5+ Years)

Long-term goals involve negotiating a comprehensive UN cybercrime convention, implementing AI governance for cyber investigations, and aligning cryptocurrency oversight with FATF standards.

Cross-Cutting Principles

All solutions should prioritize inclusivity, human-rights safeguards, stakeholder engagement, and preventive education. Effective measures require a phased approach that balances enforcement, capacity-building, and rights protection to address the evolving cybercrime landscape.

Effective solutions require phased action balancing enforcement, capacity-building, and rights protection.

9. Qarma

Q – Key Questions

- How can international law address cybercrime while respecting state sovereignty?
- Should the UN Ad Hoc Committee draft a comprehensive convention or rely on regional treaties?
- What mechanisms ensure timely cross-border information sharing without violating privacy laws?
- How can human rights, including freedom of expression and privacy, be safeguarded in cybercrime enforcement?
- What strategies can prevent criminal misuse of emerging technologies like AI or IoT devices?

A – Actors

- UN Bodies: UNGA First Committee, UNODC, UNODA, OHCHR, ITU, HRC, Ad Hoc Committee on Cybercrime, OEWG
- States: USA, China, Russia, UK, France, India, Brazil, UAE, South Africa, Saudi Arabia
- Regional Blocs: EU, G77 + China, NAM, African Union, OAS, ASEAN
- NGOs / Civil Society: Internet Governance Project, Access Now, CyberPeace Institute
- Private Sector & Law Enforcement: Tech companies (Microsoft, Google, Cisco), cybersecurity firms, CERT/CSIRT teams, INTERPOL, Europol

R – Resources / Research Tasks

- Review UN AHC draft cybercrime convention texts (2022–2024)
- Analyze GGE and OEWG reports on state behaviour in cyberspace (2010–2023)
- Examine national cybersecurity strategies of major powers (USA, China, Russia, EU members)
- Study Budapest Convention and related regional agreements
- Collect recent cross-border cybercrime case studies (2022–2025)

M – Measures

- Legal: Harmonized cybercrime laws, MLATs, extradition agreements
- Technical: CERT/CSIRT networks, threat intelligence sharing, AI-assisted investigations
- Financial: FATF-aligned cryptocurrency regulations, sanctions on illicit networks
- Diplomatic: OEWG and AHC negotiations, multilateral confidence-building measures
- Capacity-Building: Technical assistance, cybercrime training programs, regional hubs

A – Actionable Roadmap

- Define scope and terminology for cybercrime and dark-web activities
- Assess state capacity gaps and identify countries needing assistance
- Integrate human rights safeguards: proportionality, due process, privacy
- Promote legal harmonization aligned with international standards
- Strengthen cross-border cooperation via MLATs, CERT collaboration, and joint investigations

Research Site Links

1. **United Nations Charter, Arts. 11 & 26** – Foundation for disarmament and international security. <https://www.un.org/en/about-us/un-charter>
2. **UNGA First Committee Agenda: Developments in information & telecommunications security** – Core mandate for cyber discussions. <https://www.un.org/en/ga/first/>
3. **UNODC Global Cybercrime Trends / Comprehensive Study** – Key data on cybercrime patterns and darknet activity. <https://www.unodc.org>
4. **INTERPOL Cybercrime Trends 2023** – Global operational perspective. <https://www.interpol.int>
5. **World Economic Forum, Global Cybersecurity Outlook 2024** – Reports on cyber threats and economic impacts. <https://www.weforum.org>
6. **UNGA Resolution 78/247 (2023)** – Latest reaffirmation of DISEC mandate on ICT security. <https://documents.un.org>
7. **ENISA Threat Landscape Report 2023** – Technical trends, vulnerabilities, and global risk analysis. <https://www.enisa.europa.eu>
8. **FATF Virtual Assets & VASP Guidance (2023)** – Cryptocurrency regulations relevant to darknet crime. <https://www.fatf-gafi.org>
9. **Council of Europe, Budapest Convention on Cybercrime** – International legal framework. <https://www.coe.int>
10. **African Union Cybersecurity Assessment / Malabo Convention** – Regional capacity-building and legal cooperation. <https://au.int>

DISEC Agenda: B

Combating the Proliferation of Chemical Weapons in Fragile States

1. Introduction to the Topic

Definition of the Core Issue

The proliferation of chemical weapons in fragile states refers to the risk that toxic chemicals, precursors, equipment, or expertise may be acquired or used by state or non-state actors in environments marked by weak governance, conflict, or limited institutional oversight. Under Article II of the Chemical Weapons Convention (CWC), chemical weapons include toxic chemicals, their precursors, delivery systems, and related equipment intended for hostile purposes. Fragile states face particular challenges in implementing chemical safety and non-proliferation controls, increasing both national and international security risks.

Global Relevance

Chemical weapons cause severe humanitarian harm, long-term environmental damage, and undermine international norms prohibiting their use. Despite the near-universal adoption of the CWC, incidents in Iraq and Syria demonstrate how conflict and instability enable non-state armed groups to access and deploy chemical agents. International reporting highlights growing risks linked to wider availability of dual-use chemicals, illicit trafficking networks, weak national legislation, and security challenges affecting chemical storage and monitoring.

Key Stakeholders

Major stakeholders include fragile states, neighbouring countries affected by cross-border trafficking, and international bodies such as the OPCW and UNODA. The UN Security Council plays a critical role through Resolution 1540, while humanitarian organizations like WHO and the ICRC respond to chemical incidents. Civil society and academic institutions also contribute through capacity-building and chemical safety education.

Trends and Diplomatic Framing

Recent reporting shows persistent gaps in national implementation, continued interest by non-state actors in toxic chemicals, and verification challenges in conflict zones. As global chemical production increases, weak regulatory systems heighten diversion risks. Within DISEC, the issue is framed as a collective security challenge requiring multilateral cooperation, respect for sovereignty, and capacity-building rather than punitive approaches

This section establishes chemical weapons proliferation in fragile states as a global security threat rooted in governance weakness and conflict, emphasizing multilateral cooperation and capacity-building within the DISEC mandate.

2. History and Background

Early Use and Regulation

Chemical weapons emerged as large-scale battlefield weapons during World War I, causing widespread casualties and prompting early international concern. The 1925 Geneva Protocol prohibited their use but lacked enforcement, verification, and stockpile restrictions, allowing chemical weapons programs to persist throughout much of the 20th century.

Cold War and Path to the CWC

During the Cold War, major powers maintained extensive chemical arsenals, delaying comprehensive disarmament. At the same time, chemical weapons were reportedly used in conflicts involving fragile states, notably during the Iran–Iraq War. These events strengthened international resolve, leading to negotiations that culminated in the Chemical Weapons Convention in 1993.

The Chemical Weapons Convention

The CWC established a complete ban on chemical weapons, created the OPCW for verification, and introduced mechanisms for assistance and national implementation. Entering into force in 1997, it now has 193 States Parties. However, fragile states have struggled to meet

implementation requirements due to limited capacity, weak border controls, and shortages of trained personnel.

Contemporary Challenges

Chemical weapons use in Iraq and Syria since the 2000s highlighted how conflict and governance breakdowns enable proliferation by both state and non-state actors. At the same time, industrial growth and technological advances have increased access to dual-use chemicals, complicating monitoring efforts in low-capacity states.

Historical patterns show that while global norms against chemical weapons are strong, conflict and institutional fragility continue to undermine effective implementation and enforcement.

3. Causes

Structural and Political Factors

Fragile states often lack effective institutions to regulate chemicals, enforce borders, and implement CWC obligations. Political instability, civil conflict, and fragmented authority reduce state control over chemical materials and limit cooperation with international verification mechanisms.

Economic and Technological Drivers

Limited financial resources restrict investment in secure storage, trained personnel, and emergency response systems. Advances in chemical production technology and the widespread availability of toxic industrial chemicals lower barriers for misuse, particularly in conflict settings where stockpiles may be abandoned or poorly secured.

Social and Regional Dynamics

Poverty, displacement, and disrupted education weaken national expertise in chemical management and increase vulnerability to recruitment by armed groups. Porous borders and

regional instability facilitate cross-border trafficking of precursors and equipment, especially in areas experiencing transnational insurgency.

UN and Academic Perspectives

UN and academic analyses emphasize that proliferation in fragile states is rarely intentional state policy. Instead, it results from weak institutions, conflict-driven governance gaps, insufficient technical capacity, and exploitation by external actors.

Proliferation is driven by governance weakness, conflict, economic pressure, technological accessibility, and regional instability rather than deliberate state intent.

4. Effects

Humanitarian and Health Impacts

Chemical weapons cause deaths, severe injuries, long-term illness, and psychological trauma. Fragile states often lack medical infrastructure, decontamination capacity, and trained responders, intensifying civilian suffering and displacement while hindering humanitarian access.

Economic and Environmental Consequences

Chemical incidents damage agriculture, water systems, and industrial infrastructure, increasing reconstruction costs and discouraging investment. Long-term environmental contamination can render land and water unusable, prolonging economic recovery.

Security and Geopolitical Effects

The use or threat of chemical weapons strengthens non-state armed groups, increases the lethality of attacks, and expands illicit trafficking networks. Regionally, chemical incidents heighten tensions, provoke international investigations, and politicize multilateral decision-making.

Impact on Global Norms

Each instance of chemical weapons use weakens the credibility of the CWC and risks normalizing prohibited behavior. Proliferation in fragile states therefore threatens not only local populations but also the integrity of the global disarmament regime.

The proliferation of chemical weapons in fragile states produces lasting humanitarian, economic, environmental, and normative damage that extends well beyond national borders.

5. Current Situation

Overview

Between 2022 and 2025, international concern over chemical weapons proliferation in fragile states has increased due to ongoing conflicts, governance gaps, and the continued availability of dual-use chemicals. UNODA, OPCW, and Security Council reporting confirms that while global compliance with the Chemical Weapons Convention (CWC) remains strong, fragile and conflict-affected states continue to present elevated risks.

Key Trends (2022–2025)

Recent assessments highlight confirmed incidents of chlorine use in active conflict zones, particularly in Syria, alongside persistent concerns about non-state actors exploiting weak border controls and inadequate national legislation. Humanitarian organizations report growing health emergencies and displacement linked to chemical exposure, underscoring the civilian impact of these risks.

Geographic Hotspots

- **Syrian Arab Republic:** OPCW investigations continue to document the use of chlorine and other toxic agents, though access restrictions limit full verification in certain areas.
- **Iraq:** While declared stockpiles were eliminated, previous ISIS use of improvised chemical devices illustrates ongoing risks from unsecured precursors in post-conflict regions.

Other fragile regions: Parts of the Sahel, Horn of Africa, and Yemen face vulnerabilities due to porous borders, armed group activity, and weak regulatory oversight.

Current International Responses

The OPCW maintains verification, monitoring, and assistance missions, providing protective equipment and emergency response training. The UN Security Council's 1540 Committee supports reporting, peer review, and technical assistance to prevent non-state actor access to chemical materials. Regional organizations and humanitarian agencies complement these efforts through border security training and medical response support.

High-Level Assessment

Despite strong international norms, fragile states remain high-risk environments for chemical weapons proliferation. Existing mechanisms are effective but require sustained political commitment, funding, and technical engagement to address persistent vulnerabilities.

Chemical weapons risks remain concentrated in fragile states where conflict and weak governance undermine implementation of global non-proliferation norms.

6. UN Past Actions

Legal and Institutional Framework

The United Nations has established a comprehensive framework to address chemical weapons proliferation. The Chemical Weapons Convention serves as the cornerstone, prohibiting all aspects of chemical weapons and mandating verification through the OPCW. Earlier instruments, including the 1925 Geneva Protocol, laid the foundation for this regime.

Key Security Council Actions

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- **UNSC Resolution 1540 (2004)** obliges all states to prevent non-state actors from acquiring weapons of mass destruction and underpins monitoring and assistance efforts.
 - **UNSC Resolution 2118 (2013)** mandated the elimination of Syria's declared chemical weapons under OPCW supervision.
 - Subsequent resolutions expanded investigative mechanisms and accountability measures related to chemical weapons use.

UN Programs and Support Mechanisms

UNODA provides legislative guidance, training, and peer review to support national implementation of CWC obligations. The OPCW's Assistance and Protection Programme delivers technical support, emergency preparedness, and post-conflict remediation. Regional partnerships, particularly involving the EU and AU, strengthen border controls and chemical trafficking prevention.

Persistent Gaps

Challenges remain due to limited implementation capacity in fragile states, restricted access for inspectors in conflict zones, and vulnerabilities linked to residual stockpiles and dual-use chemicals. These gaps highlight the need for continued international engagement.

The UN system provides strong legal and operational tools, but fragile states require sustained assistance to translate global norms into effective national control.

7. Country Stances / Bloc Positions

Major Powers

- **United States:** Emphasizes strict enforcement of the CWC, robust verification, and accountability measures, particularly against terrorist acquisition.
- **China:** Supports the CWC while prioritizing diplomatic engagement, capacity-building, and non-politicized technical cooperation.
- **Russian Federation:** Advocates compliance with the CWC but stresses sovereignty concerns and contextual security challenges in fragile states.

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- **United Kingdom and France:** Support strong OPCW verification, accountability for violations, and assistance to build fragile-state capacity.

Emerging and Global South States

- **India and Brazil:** Emphasize technical assistance, peaceful uses of chemistry, and cooperation over punitive approaches.
- **Iran:** Supports CWC commitments while highlighting sovereignty, regional stability, and diplomatic solutions.

Bloc-Level Positions

- **G77 + China:** Focus on financial and technical assistance to address implementation gaps.
- **European Union:** Promotes enforcement, verification, and sustained capacity-building.
- **Non-Aligned Movement:** Emphasizes equitable access to assistance and conflict-sensitive implementation.

State positions converge on non-proliferation but diverge on enforcement versus assistance, shaping negotiations within DISEC.

8. Possible Solutions

Short-Term (1–2 Years)

Immediate priorities include enhanced OPCW monitoring in high-risk areas, rapid-response inspections, and expanded use of intelligence-sharing tools. Fragile states should receive emergency protective equipment, medical supplies, and first-responder training. Targeted sanctions may be applied to verified violators, with safeguards to limit humanitarian impact.

Medium-Term (2–5 Years)

Efforts should focus on building national legal frameworks aligned with the CWC, training customs and border officials, and establishing laboratories for safe handling and destruction of chemical agents. Regional cooperation centers can support shared training, education, and emergency preparedness.

Long-Term (5+ Years)

Sustainable solutions require institutional strengthening to embed chemical safety into national security and industrial oversight systems. Regional agreements and multilateral funding mechanisms should support long-term compliance, while public education and academic training help build domestic expertise.

Legal and Diplomatic Foundations

All measures should remain consistent with the CWC, particularly Articles X and XI on assistance and cooperation, and be coordinated through UN Security Council and OPCW mechanisms.

Benefits Across Stakeholders

Stakeholder	Key Benefit
Fragile States	Improved safety, stronger institutions, better emergency response
Neighbouring States	Reduced spillover and trafficking risks
International Community	Reinforced global non-proliferation norms
Humanitarian Agencies	Safer operating environments

A phased approach combining immediate protection, medium-term capacity-building, and long-term institutional resilience offers the most effective path to reducing chemical weapons risks in fragile states.

QARMA

Q – Key Questions

1. How can fragile states strengthen national legal frameworks to prevent chemical weapons proliferation?
2. What measures can be taken to secure and destroy dual-use chemicals in conflict zones?
3. How can non-state actor access to chemical precursors be effectively prevented?
4. Which regional cooperation mechanisms are most effective in mitigating chemical weapons risks?
5. How can OPCW and UNODA assistance programs be adapted to local capacity and context?
6. What strategies can ensure compliance with UNSC Resolution 1540 in fragile states?
7. How should the international community balance sanctions with humanitarian concerns?
8. What role can education and public awareness play in chemical weapons prevention?
9. How can reporting and verification mechanisms be enhanced in conflict-affected areas?
10. What lessons can be drawn from Syria, Iraq, and other high-risk cases for global policy frameworks?

A – Actors

- **UN Bodies:** UNODA, UNSC 1540 Committee, OPCW, UNHCR, WHO, UNDP.
- **States:** Major powers (USA, Russia, UK, France, China), emerging states (India, Brazil, South Africa), regional actors (Saudi Arabia, UAE, Iran).
- **NGOs / Civil Society:** ICRC, MSF (Doctors Without Borders), regional human rights organizations.
- **International Organizations:** EU, AU, G77, NAM.
- **Private Sector:** Chemical manufacturers, logistics companies involved in dual-use chemicals.

R – Resources / Research Tasks

Delegates must consult the following:

1. OPCW CWC texts and Assistance and Protection Program details.
2. UNSC Resolution 1540 full text and reports.
3. UNSC Resolutions 2118, 2235, and related chemical weapons enforcement updates.
4. UNODA National Implementation Support documentation.
5. OPCW Fact-Finding Mission reports (Syria, 2022–2024).
6. UNGA First Committee reports on chemical weapons compliance (2022–2024).
7. WHO guidance on chemical incidents and emergency preparedness.
8. ICRC reports on humanitarian and civilian protection in chemical incidents.
9. Country statements on chemical weapons policy (USA, Russia, China, India, Brazil, Iran, France, UK).
10. International media reports from BBC, Reuters, and Al Jazeera on recent chemical weapons use.

M – Measures

- Strengthen **legal frameworks** in fragile states for CWC implementation.
- Implement **OPCW-led technical assistance programs** for chemical safety and stockpile destruction.
- Develop **regional monitoring and intelligence-sharing mechanisms**.
- Support **emergency preparedness**, including training and protective equipment.
- Enforce **sanctions and accountability measures** consistent with UNSC resolutions.
- Promote **public awareness campaigns** and educational initiatives.
- Enhance **reporting, verification, and peer review mechanisms** for member states.

A – Actionable Roadmap for Draft Resolutions

1. Mandate states to report existing chemical stockpiles and dual-use chemicals to OPCW and UNSC 1540 Committee.
2. Call for deployment of technical assistance and emergency response teams in fragile states.

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3. Establish regional centers for chemical weapons capacity-building and monitoring.
 4. Encourage peer review mechanisms for national legislation and compliance measures.
 5. Recommend funding and resource mobilization through OPCW and UN trust funds.
 6. Outline sanctions or enforcement actions for non-compliance, coordinated with the UNSC.
 7. Promote public education campaigns and community-level awareness programs.
 8. Create mechanisms for rapid investigation of alleged chemical attacks.
 9. Encourage cooperation between fragile states and neighboring countries for border control.
 10. Request periodic reporting to the First Committee on implementation and progress.

12. Research Site Links (Clickable URLs)

1. **OPCW – Chemical Weapons Convention & Assistance Programs** – Primary international body for chemical weapons control. <https://www.opcw.org>
2. **UN Security Council Resolution 1540 (2004)** – Obligates states to prevent WMD proliferation, including chemical weapons. [https://undocs.org/S/RES/1540\(2004\)](https://undocs.org/S/RES/1540(2004))
3. **UN Security Council Resolution 2118 (2013)** – Implementation of chemical weapons disarmament in Syria. [https://undocs.org/S/RES/2118\(2013\)](https://undocs.org/S/RES/2118(2013))
4. **UN Security Council Resolution 2235 (2015)** – Investigative mechanisms for chemical weapon use in conflict zones. [https://undocs.org/S/RES/2235\(2015\)](https://undocs.org/S/RES/2235(2015))
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